Universität Bonn

Notes for the lecture

Functional Analysis and PDE

held by

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TEXed by

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Corrections and improvements

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Lecture

Chapter 0

Overview/Teaser

[09.10.2024, Lecture 1]

1. What is FA?
   - Analysis on infinite-dimensional spaces

     examples: $C^0(X), C^\infty(U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n), \ell_p = \{a : \mathbb{N} \to \mathbb{R} \mid \sum_{n=0}^\infty |a_n|^p < \infty\}$ $(1 \leq p \leq \infty)$
   - Combination of geometric, analytic and (linear) algebraic ideas
2. What is FA good for?
   - Geometry/Topology with manifolds, bundles, loop space
   - PDEs, scalar products
   - Algorithms/Numerics (approxmiation theory; errors)
   - infinite-dimensional representations
   - Mathematical Physics / Quantum Mechanics; spectral theory
   - Probability Theory (infinite products)
3. Why combine PA & PDE?
   - $u : U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n \to \mathbb{R}$ as a C^2 function:

     $$\Delta u(x) = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x_i^2}. \tag{0.1}$$

     with $-\Delta u = f$.

     Classical approach: Given a potential $f \in C^2$, does there exist a solution and is that solution unique?

     Modern approach: $\Delta : X \to Y$ linear map between function spaces. e.g. $X = C^2(U), Y = C^0(U)$. Existance of solutions for all $f \in C^0$ is equiv to surjectivity of $f\Delta$ and uniqueness is equivalent to injectivity.

     Fun fact: C^2 is a bad space for Δ. But Δ is a good operator on many function spaces, e.g. $C^{2,\alpha}$ with $0 < \alpha < 1$, so D^2u is α-Hölder continuous, or for $W^{2,p}$ as Sobolev spaces (where $D^2u \in L^p$ for $1 < p < \infty$), where D^2 is the weak derivative
4. „Big things“
   - Spaces (of founctions) and convergence (norm, scalarproduct)
   - (Bounded) Linear operators, Hahn-Banach theorem, uniform boundedness, ...
   - Hilbert spaces, projections
   - Spectral theory (LA: $A : \mathbb{R}^n \to \mathbb{R}^n$ symmetric, so $\langle Ax, y\rangle = \langle x, Ay\rangle \Rightarrow \exists$ orthogonal basis of eigenvectors; we want something similar in infinite dimensions which makes diagonazing easier, and we can easily compute the inverse or powers of the operator)

Chapter 1

Structures

Generally, all vector spaces will be with $\mathbb{K} = \mathbb{R}$ or $\mathbb{K} = \mathbb{C}$.

- on „infinite-dimensional“ spaces
- Convergence and neighbourhoods, topological space
- Metric space (metric, triangle inequality, gives a *distance*)
- Normed space (vector space, $\|\lambda x\| = |\lambda| \cdot \|x\|$ for $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$, gives a *length*)
- Scalar product space ($\|x\| = \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle}$, gives a *length and an angle*)

1.1 Topological spaces

Let X a set and 2^X the power set.

Definition 1.1: Topological space, Topology

A *topological space* $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is a pair of a set X and subset $\mathcal{T}$ of 2^X with the following properties:

(i) $\emptyset \in \mathcal{T}, X \in \mathcal{T}$

(ii) finite intersections: $U, V \in \mathcal{T} \Rightarrow U \cap V \in \mathcal{T}$

(iii) arbitrary unions: $U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}\ \forall \alpha \in A \Rightarrow \bigcup_{\alpha \in A} U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}$.

The set $\mathcal{T}$ is called a *Topology on* X and the elements in $\mathcal{T}$ are often called *open sets*. A set C is called *closed* if $X \setminus C$ is open.
If $\mathcal{T}_1$ and $\mathcal{T}$ are topologies on X, then $\mathcal{T}_1$ is called *finer* than $\mathcal{T}_2$ or $\mathcal{T}_2$ is called *coarser* than $\mathcal{T}_1$ if $\mathcal{T}_1 \supset \mathcal{T}_2$.

Example 1.2. (i) The finest topology is $\mathcal{T} = 2^X$.

(ii) The coarsest topology is $\mathcal{T} = \{\emptyset, X\}$.

(iii) Standard topology on $\mathbb{R}$: $U \in \mathcal{T}_{st} \iff \forall x \in U \exists \varepsilon > 0 : (x - \varepsilon, x + \varepsilon) \subseteq U$. We will usually use this topology.

(iv) Let $X = \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathcal{T} = \{U \subseteq \mathbb{R} \mid U = \emptyset \text{ or } U \text{ is countable}\}$. Then, the closed sets are countable[1] or $\mathbb{R}$.

(v) Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space. Then, for $A \subseteq X$, the *relative topology* $\mathcal{T}_A$ on A is defined by $\mathcal{T}_A = \{U \cap A \mid U \in \mathcal{T}\}$.

(vi) Let B be a set and $\mathcal{T}_\beta$ a topology on X for all $\beta \in B$. Then, $\mathcal{T} := \bigcap_{\beta \in B} \beta$ defines a topology on X.

[1] We call a set *countable* if it is empty, finite or has an bijection to $\mathbb{N}$.

Given any $\mathcal{S} \subseteq 2^X$,

$$\bigcap_{\substack{\mathcal{T} \text{ top.} \\ \mathcal{T} \supseteq \mathcal{S}}} \mathcal{T} \tag{1.1}$$

is a topology and is called the *coarsest topology containing* $\mathcal{S}$.

(*vii*) *Product topology* of $(X, \mathcal{T}_X), (Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$ as topological spaces is definied with

$$\mathcal{S} := \{U \times Y \mid U \in \mathcal{T}_X\} \cup \{X \times V \mid V \in \mathcal{T}_Y\}. \tag{1.2}$$

The product topology is $\mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{S}}$, the coarsest topology containing $\mathcal{S}$.

The product topology is the coarsest topology so that the projections $\pi_1(x, y) = x$ and $\pi_2(x, y) = y$ are „continuous“.

Definition 1.3: Interior, Closure, Boundary

Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space and $A \subseteq X$. We define the *interior* A°, the *closure* $\overline{A}$ and the *boundary* ∂A by

$$A^\circ = \bigcup_{\substack{U \subseteq A \\ U \in \mathcal{T}}} U, \quad \overline{A} = \bigcap_{\substack{C \supseteq A \\ X \setminus C \in \mathcal{T}}} C, \quad \partial A = \overline{A} \setminus A^\circ. \tag{1.3}$$

Definition 1.4: Dense subsets

$A \subseteq X$ is *dense* if $\overline{A} = X$.

Definition 1.5: Open neighbourhood

Let $x \in X$. Then, $U \subseteq X$ is an *open neighbourhood of* x if $U \in \mathcal{T}$ and $x \in U$.

Definition 1.6: Continuous maps, Homeomorphisms

Let $(X, \mathcal{T}_X), (Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$ topological spaces. Then, $f : X \to Y$ is called *continuous* if

$$\forall V \supseteq \{x\} \in \mathcal{T}_Y : \quad f^{-1}(V) = \{x \in X \mid f(x) \in V\} \in \mathcal{T}_X. \tag{1.4}$$

We call f a *homeomorphism* if f is bijective and both f and f^{-1} are continuous.

If $\mathcal{T} = 2^X$, and $f : X \to Y$ is continuous.

If $\mathcal{T} = \{\emptyset, \mathcal{T}\}$, then every constant map is continuous.

[09.10.2024, Lecture 1]
[11.10.2024, Lecture 2]

Definition 1.7: Convergence

Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space and $x : \mathbb{N} \to X$ a sequence. Let $x^* \in X$. We say that x *converges to* x^* if for **every** neighbourhood U of x, the set $\{j \in \mathbb{N} \mid x_j \notin U\}$ is finite.

Example. (*i*) If $\mathcal{T} = \{\emptyset, X\}$, every sequence converges to every point $x^* \in X$.

(*ii*) If $\mathcal{T} = 2^X$, take $U = \{x^*\}$, so only sequences which are constant with up to finitely many exceptions converge.

Definition 1.8: Hausdorff space

A topological space is called a *Hausdorff space* if

(*i*) sets consisting of a single point are closed,

(*ii*) for different points $x \neq y$, there exist disjoint open neighbourhoods: $\exists U_x, U_y \in \mathcal{T}$ with $x \in U_x, y \in U_y$ and $U_x \cap U_y = \emptyset$.

Proposition 1.9. *If $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is Hausdorff, then every sequence has at most one limit point.* □

Definition 1.10: Compactness

A subset K of a topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is *compact* if every open cover of K contains a **finite** subcover: If A is an index set and $U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}$ for every $\alpha \in A$ and

$$\bigcup_{\alpha \in A} U_\alpha \supseteq K, \tag{1.5}$$

then there exists a **finite** set $A' \subseteq A$ so that

$$\bigcup_{\alpha \in A'} U_\alpha \supseteq K. \tag{1.6}$$

Lemma 1.11: Continuous maps compact to compact

If $f : (X, \mathcal{T}_X) \to (Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$ is continuous and $K \subseteq X$ is compact in X, then $f(X)$ is compact in Y.

Proof. Follows directly from the definitions. □

Theorem 1.12: Continuous maps with compact domain attain max and min

If $f : (X, \mathcal{T}_X) \to \mathbb{R}$ is continuous and $K \subseteq X$ is compact, then f attains its minimum and maximum on K, i.e. $\exists \underline{x}, \overline{x} \in K$ so that $f(\underline{x}) = \inf_{x \in K} f(x), f(\overline{x}) = \sup_{x \in K} f(x)$.

Proof. $f(K) \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is compact, the rest is easy. □

Definition 1.13: Connectedness

Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space. We call X *connected* if it cannot be written as a disjoint union of two open subsets. A subset $A \subseteq X$ is connected if $(A, \mathcal{T}_A)$ is connected.

Exercise 1. Show that intervals in $\mathbb{R}$ are connected.

Theorem 1.14: Intermediate value theorem

If $f : (X, \mathcal{T}_X) \to \mathbb{R}$ is continuous and $(X, \mathcal{T}_X)$ is connected, and there exist $a, b \in X$ so that $f(a) < 0, f(b) > 0$. Then, there exists an $x \in X$ with $f(x) = 0$.

Proof. Assume $f(x) \neq 0$ for all $x \in X$. We know that $U := f^{-1}((0, \infty))$ is open, and $X \setminus U = f^{-1}((-\infty, 0]) = f^{-1}((-\infty, 0))$ is also open. Then, $X = U \cup (X \setminus U) \Rightarrow X$ not connected. ↯ □

1.2 Metric spaces

Let X be a set and $d : X \times X \to [0, \infty)$.

Definition 1.15: Metric space, metric

(X, d) is called a *metric space* and d is called *metric* if

(*i*) $d(x, y) = 0 \Leftrightarrow x = y$,

(*ii*) $\forall x, y : d(x, y) = d(y, x)$,

(*iii*) (triangle inequality) $d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(z, y)$ for all $x, y, z \in X$.[1]

If only (*ii*) and (*iii*) are fulfilled, we call d a *semimetric* or *pseudometric*, and with $x \sim y :\Leftrightarrow d(x, y) = 0$, we get a metric $\overline{d}$ on the equivalence classes.

[1] „Where the triangle inequality is not true is on airline flights. Sometimes, it is cheaper to fly from Köln/Bonn to Mallorca first before flying to mainland Spain later.“ – Stefan Müller, 11.10.2024

Lemma 1.16: Composition of concave map and metric is metric

*Assume $\psi : [0, \infty) \to [0, \infty)$ is continuous, non-decreasing, **concave** and $\psi(0) = 0, \psi(x) > 0$ for $x > 0$. If d is a metric on X, so is $\psi \circ d$.*

Proof. It is enough and easy to check that $\psi(a + b) \leq \psi(a) + \psi(b)$. □

Example. Define $\psi(t) := \frac{t}{1+t} = 1 - \frac{1}{1+t}$. Then, $\psi \in C^0([0, \infty)) \cap C^2((0, \infty))$. Non-decreasing and concave are equivalent to $\psi' \geq 0$ and $\psi'' \leq 0$.

Example. (*i*) Let $X = \mathbb{R}^n$ and $d_\infty(x, y) = \max_{1 \leq i \leq n} |x_i - y_i|$.

(*ii*) $X = \mathbb{R}^n, d_p(x, y) := (\sum_{i=1}^n |x_i - y_i|^p)^{\frac{1}{p}}$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$,

(*iii*) $\ell_p = \left\{ a : \mathbb{N} \to \mathbb{R} \;\middle|\; (\sum_{i=1}^\infty |x_i|^p)^{\frac{1}{p}} < \infty \right\}$ and $d_p(a, b) := (\sum_{i=1}^\infty |a_i - b_i|^p)^{\frac{1}{p}}$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$

(*iv*) $\ell_\infty := \{a : \mathbb{N} \to \mathbb{R} \mid \sup_{i \in \mathbb{N}} |a_i| < \infty\}$ with $d_\infty(a, b) := \sup_{i \in \mathbb{N}} |a_i - b_i|$

(*v*) $X = \mathbb{R}$ with $d(x, y) = \frac{|x-y|}{1+|x-y|} = \psi(|x - y|)$ for $\psi(t) = \frac{t}{1+t}$. By Lemma 1.16, d is a metric on $\mathbb{R}$. Fun fact: $0 \leq d(x, y) < 1$.

(*vi*) Metric on the space of all sequences:

$$d(a, b) = \sum_{i=0}^{\infty} 2^{-i} \frac{|a_i - b_i|}{1 + |a_i - b_i|} \leq \sum_{i=0}^{\infty} 2^{-i} \leq 2. \tag{1.7}$$

(*vii*) Let X be a set and (Y, d_Y) a metric space and $f : X \to Y$ **injective**. Then, we can define the *pullback metric* $d_X(x, y) := d_Y(f(x), f(y))$. d_X is a metric on X.

(*viii*) $\overline{\mathbb{R}} := \mathbb{R} \cup \{-\infty, \infty\}$. Then,

$$f : \overline{\mathbb{R}} \to [-1, 1], x \mapsto \begin{cases} -1 & x = -\infty \\ \frac{x}{1+|x|} & x \in \mathbb{R} \\ 1 & x = \infty \end{cases} \tag{1.8}$$

is bijective. Then, $d_{\overline{\mathbb{R}}}(x, y) = |f(x) - f(y)|$ is a pullback metric.

(*ix*) Shortest path on a graph

Remark. Let (X,d) be a metric space, let $A,B \subseteq X$, let $x \in X$ and let $r > 0$. Further distances:

Diameter of a subset

$$\sup\{d(x,y) \mid x,y \in A\} \tag{1.9}$$

(with the convention $\operatorname{diam}(A) = \infty$ if $\{d(x,y) \mid x,y \in A\}$ is unbounded)

Distance between two sets

$$\operatorname{dist}(A,B) = \inf\{d(x,y) \mid x \in A, y \in B\} \tag{1.10}$$

Distance between a point and a set

$$\operatorname{dist}(x,A) = \inf\{d(x,y) \mid y \in B\} = \operatorname{dist}(\{x\},A) \tag{1.11}$$

r-neighbourhood of a set

$$B_r(A) := \{x \in X \mid \operatorname{dist}(x,A) < r\} \tag{1.12}$$

r-ball of a point

$$B_r(x) = B(x,r) = \{y \in X \mid d(y,x) < r\} \tag{1.13}$$

Hausdorff distance of two sets

$$d_H(A,B) := \inf\{r > 0 \mid A \subseteq B_r(B) \text{ and } B \subseteq B_r(A)\} \tag{1.14}$$

and $d_H(\{x\},\{y\}) = d(x,y)$.

Remark. It is easy to show that

$$d_H(A,B) = \max\left(\sup_{x\in A}\operatorname{dist}(x,B), \sup_{y\in B}\operatorname{dist}(y,A)\right). \tag{1.15}$$

Proof. Exercise. □

Proposition 1.17. *Let (X,d) be a metric space. Let $\mathcal{T}_d$ consist of all sets U with the following property:*

$$\forall x \in U \exists \varepsilon > 0 : B_\varepsilon(x) \subseteq U. \tag{1.16}$$

Then, $\mathcal{T}_d$ is a topology on X.

Proof. Clear. For the intersection, take the ball with the smaller radius. □

Lemma 1.18: Hausdorff distance is metric on closed and bounded sets

Let (X,d) be a Hausdorff space. Then, d_H defines a metric on

$$\mathcal{C} := \{A \subseteq X \mid \emptyset \neq A \text{ is closed and bounded}\}. \tag{1.17}$$

[11.10.2024, Lecture 2]
[16.10.2024, Lecture 3]

Appendix

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